

MOTIVATION AND PERSONALITY

Nothing attests to the vaulting ambition of American inter-war Psychology quite as well as the invention of two wholly new fields of investigation – motivation and personality. More than any others, these two categories staked the claim of Psychology *as a discipline* to special and privileged knowledge about the *entire* range of human affairs.

One of the first systematic texts in this area begins as follows:

All behavior is motivated. Getting out of bed when the alarm clock rings, brushing the teeth, shaving, selecting the day's necktie, ordering rolls and coffee or ham and eggs from the menu card, picking up the paper to read the news – these everyday activities are all causally determined. You take them for granted, generally being unconscious of any motive determining what is being done. Nevertheless a definite motivation is invariably present. (Young, 1936: 1)

Scientific psychology promised to unravel the secrets of this invisible but ubiquitous network of causal determination. No human action, no matter how trivial, could now escape its reach. And what was not covered by the general laws of motivation, namely the differences among individuals in carrying out these actions, would be netted by the new field of scientific personality research. Seamlessly, the new Psychology will account, not just for the 'how' but for the 'why' of all human activity.

In its earlier phase the new experimental psychology had had far more modest aims. It would not have occurred to a Wundt or a Titchener that their field ought to provide explanations of everyday conduct. The special problems arising out of the structure and flow of human consciousness, which they investigated, would impinge on ordinary human activity here and there, but there was no pretence that their laboratory studies would yield knowledge that could, in principle, explain why anyone ever did anything. Accordingly, their modest psychology lacked the categories that would have provided a suitable framework for accommodating such claims. They knew neither 'motivation' nor 'personality'. Baldwin's (1901) comprehensive turn of the century dictionary has no entry for 'motivation' at all. It has an entry for 'person', whose content is entirely philosophical, and an entry for 'personality', whose content is entirely medical, but there is no psychology of personality.

Both the psychology of motivation and the psychology of personality were constructions of the inter-war period, the twenties and thirties of the twentieth century. Let us trace each of these constructions, first 'motivation' and then 'personality'.

The interest in motivation

In 1928 the Harvard psychologist, L.T. Troland, published the first general text featuring the word 'motivation' in the main title (Troland, 1928). With the appearance of this text the editors of *Psychological Abstracts* apparently felt that it was time to give 'motivation' its own entry in their index. In the previous year, another text had used 'motivation' in its subtitle (Thomson, 1927), and from now on introductory texts began to add a chapter on this topic to their survey of the discipline (e.g. Dashiell, 1928; Hollingworth, 1928; Perrin, 1932). By 1936, the author of a new authoritative volume on motivation was able to mention its use as a text in a college course devoted to this topic (Young, 1936). Such courses gradually became common. Two years later, that is, ten years after its first recognition of the category, *Psychological Abstracts* carried twenty-six entries under this heading.

What was behind this growth? A first clue is provided by Troland's early reference to a discrepancy between the source of students' interest in psychology and the actual content of the discipline. Laymen were usually drawn to psychology because of their interest in human motives, it was said, yet the older textbooks covering the field offered nothing to satisfy that interest (Troland, 1928: 1). Certainly, the marketing orientation of American college professors, the pressure to keep the lay consumers of their wares interested, was a factor not to be overlooked in this context. But it is necessary to go a little deeper. One must ask why lay persons came to psychology with this particular orientation in the 1920s, when there is no indication of such expectations during the previous century. No doubt, the massive popularization of psychoanalysis in the post-war period played a significant role in establishing a link between the subject of psychology and the exploration of individual motives. In the subsequent academic literature on the topic of motivation Freud is always mentioned as a motivational theorist, if only to repudiate his theories as unscientific. Among other things, the construction of the new field of motivation enabled academic psychology to extend its dominion to topics that psychoanalysis had put on the agenda and threatened to monopolize. The new science of motivation began to act like a superior court that would adjudicate the truth claims of other psychologies.

But psychoanalysis was far from being the only source of contemporary interest in human motivation. The enormous expansion and rationalization of the educational system had created problem situations

that could not be entirely mastered by recourse to the doctrine of differential ability or 'intelligence'. That children often lacked interest in their school work was hardly news. What was new was the conviction that this condition was treatable by applying scientific knowledge about 'fatigue' and whatever counteracted it: the will, motives, interests, as the case may be. Reform-minded educators began to propound such ideas early in the twentieth century. The first book to have 'motivation' in its title was not Troland's (as he claimed) but the Wilsons' *The Motivation of School Work* of 1916. Once educationists had come to conceptualize some of their problems in terms of the category of 'classroom motivation', there was a potential market for psychological principles and techniques labelled as pertaining to this category (Knight and Remmers, 1923).

Psychologists were becoming more and more involved in such markets, as various fields of what was called 'applied psychology'¹ were opening up. One such field was vocational guidance, where psychologists had to contend with the influence of humanists and moralists. The very first volume of the *Journal of Applied Psychology* contained an article which pointed out that if psychologists were to be successful in this endeavour they would have to rely less exclusively on 'intellectual tests' and pay more attention to 'the psychology of interests, motives, and character' (Folsom, 1917). In the years that followed they certainly did so.

Another prominent area of early 'applied psychology' was advertising research, a branch of the broader 'psychology of salesmanship'. Here, psychologists became involved with an industry that was switching from an early preoccupation with perceptual effects to the more fundamental issues of inducing new needs and desires among potential consumers. Adopting the language of the industry, psychologists conducted investigations showing that the most effective kind of advertising was aimed at the creation of new 'wants' (Strong, 1925, Strong and Loveless, 1926). As in other fields, psychologists' growing involvement with practical problems was contributing to the greater salience of categories of psychological discourse that had a non-cognitive, non-intellectual content.

In industry, there were several problem areas for which the question of rewards and incentives was beginning to appear particularly relevant. More than the issue of productivity, which was traditionally handled rather mechanically, rising concern about extraordinarily high rates of labour turnover prompted calls for psychological input into questions of 'unwillingness to work' and work satisfaction (Frost, 1920). The steady centralization of hiring and firing decisions in large companies, and increasing faith in the wisdom of scientific experts, had also made the application of relevant psychological knowledge more feasible. Before World War I, psychological knowledge pertaining to rewards and incentives hardly existed; in the 1920s, however, research in this area blossomed. By 1927, the textbook presentation of the sub-discipline of

applied psychology included chapters on 'the measurement of character and interest' and 'satisfaction as a product of work', as well as sections devoted to such topics as the 'relative strength of desires', 'consumers' likes and dislikes', and 'the conflict of motives' (Poffenberger, 1927). In addition, there is a discussion of laboratory studies of punishment in the context of the treatment of criminal offenders.

The more popular literature of 'personal efficiency', directed at ambitious and aspiring managers and salesmen, had been using the semantics of motivation and personality for some time. As early as 1917, about half of a book entitled *The Executive and his Control of Men* (Gowin, 1917) was devoted to what was called 'motivating the group'. This included chapters on 'rewards' and on 'personality'. The post-war literature on 'influencing people' popularized the notion that individuals could be readily manipulated by playing on their wants, interests and motives (Overstreet, 1925).

Comparing the psychological and quasi-psychological literature of the second and third decades of the twentieth century with earlier usage, the change in the semantics of 'motive' is quite striking. Traditionally, a 'motive' was a substantive that referred to a specific aspect or entity linked to some human action. The verbal form, 'to motivate', and the abstract form, 'motivation', were quite rare and are not documented as having occurred before the late nineteenth century (*Oxford English Dictionary*, 1989). Even then, we get no more than a reference to the motivation of events in a novel or a principle of ethics (Tufts, 1904). In the twentieth century, however, there occurs a veritable explosion in the use of verbal and abstract derivatives of 'motive'. If dictionary entries are any guide, a large part of this development is directly associated with the literature of Psychology and its derivatives.

What we witness first of all in the early twentieth century is the new popularity and prominence of the verbal form 'to motivate'. This is a form that occurs as part of a rapidly expanding discourse of 'social control'. The specific reference of this term was at that time directed at the growing literature on the improvement of advertising and salesmanship, industrial efficiency, teaching practice, and personal advancement. It was recognized that these improvements could not be achieved simply by force or by the manipulation of the environment. One had to play upon what individuals wanted, what they were interested in, what they privately wished for. Everyday terms like desire, want, interest, and also motive, were used to represent what it was one had to influence. But in American social science 'social control' also acquired a more general meaning as a process that provided the basis for any kind of social collaboration or conformity within a society imagined as an aggregate of autonomous individuals. This generalized discourse of social control required a general term to refer to the entire variety of personal direction as a potential object of external influence. In time, 'motivation' came to play that role. The situation was quite clear to

those who began arguing for a psychology of motivation in the 1920s. An early contribution to this argument, published in the *Psychological Review*, begins as follows:

A rather insistent demand for an adequate psychology of motivation has always been made by those who are interested in the control of human nature. It has come from economists, sociologists, educators, advertisers, scout masters, and investigators of crime; more recently it has been voiced by certain psychologists, particularly those interested in personality and character, and in the various applied phases of the science. (Perrin, 1923)

Early textbooks of motivation continued to show awareness of these roots in introducing their topic. Troland (1928: 1) begins his pioneering treatise by referring to the businessman who 'wishes to know how to play on the motives of other men so that they will purchase his goods and services'. Young (1936: 2) says disarmingly: 'We all desire to influence and control human behavior – our own and that of others', and follows this with a tale about a student who applied 'scientific motivational principles' to his work as a salesman 'and before the semester was over had won a national prize in salesmanship'. (Surely the author of this text on motivation also deserved such a prize.)

The way in which the new concept of motivation is contextualized by its psychologist advocates signals a profound change in the understanding of human subjectivity. There had always been words referring to different facets of human intentionality, wish, desire, want, will, motive, and so on. These were usually invoked when it was a matter of accounting for one's own, or others', deviation from the automatic, habitual patterns of action that characterize everyday life. 'Motivation', however, departs from this usage in setting up an abstract category that groups all the older referents together, implying that they all have something important in common. *All* action, no matter how trivial or habitual, is motivated, according to those who were selling motivation.

In its abstractness 'motivation' has some similarity to the nineteenth-century term 'conation' (Hamilton, 1863). Why then was it necessary to invent a new term? Why did conation disappear, just when it might have taken on new life? Conation certainly suffered from the company it kept. It was a term invented by philosophers and used by philosophical psychologists that had never become part of the common language. In the twentieth century, conation was used by William McDougall, whose insistence on its instinctive basis did nothing to advance its cause among American psychologists of the 1920s. Traditionally, conation had referred to an assumed active principle in consciousness. Its reference was to the inner life of the individual; the evidence for its existence was largely introspective.

By contrast, 'motivation' did not abstract from a variety of terms referring to inner experience but from a variety of terms used in the context of influencing people. The actual words – want, wish, motive, etc. – might be the same, but the context of their use was different.

'Conation' abstracted something that, for example, will and desire had in common *insofar as they were objects of inner experience*. However, 'motivation' abstracted something that, for example, wants and motives had in common, *insofar as they were potential objects of manipulation and influence*. The qualities of consciousness that were important in nineteenth-century discussions of conation were irrelevant for the twentieth-century discourse on 'social control'.

Nevertheless, the older meanings did not disappear from ordinary usage. 'Conation' may have gone, but the lower order terms that it sought to unify are still with us. Everyday language still uses many terms that are taken to refer to an inner experience of intentionality or agency. The discipline of Psychology had to come to terms with the duality in the use of the terms that the concept of 'motivation' was intended to unify. Desires and motives may be objects for the exercise of influence and control, but they also remain anchored in a discourse of subjective purposes and intentions. Bridging this duality was the fundamental theoretical task faced by the new psychology of motivation. What resources were available for accomplishing this task?

First, there was a legacy of nineteenth-century speculation about the relationship between consciousness and bodily movement. This had resulted in a reduction of intentional consciousness to a matter of habit mechanisms that were subject to external influence through training. From Alexander Bain to William James there had developed a literature on 'the education of the will' in which conscious intentionality had already been transformed into an object of control. Motives were smoothly substituted for the will.

But there was another resource that was readily available for bridging the gap between the subjective experience of striving and 'motivation' as an object of control. This was the powerful metaphor of 'energy'. The same popular and textbook literature which posited 'motivation' as an object of influence generally also employed the energy metaphor to take care of the subjective side of its topic. This metaphor had emerged in the nineteenth century and promoted the naturalization of the will. By the beginning of the twentieth century, it had become highly popular as a vehicle of self-understanding. What would once have been described in voluntaristic terms as an action of the will is now more often represented as a mobilization of energy. In the more up-to-date advice literature, success for business executives is not presented as depending on exerting one's will power, but in being an energetic personality and controlling 'the energizing level' of one's subordinates (Gowin, 1917). There is widespread interest in what is called 'mobilizing one's hidden reserves of energy', or getting one's 'second wind', and widespread concern, not about weakness of will, but about depletion of one's stock of energy (Kugelmann, 1992).

William James was an early contributor to this literature. In his 1906 lecture on 'The energies of men' he claimed that 'the human individual

... energizes below his maximum' (James, 1911: 12). Pointing the way to the psychology of motivation that was to develop some years later, he presents the problem as follows:

In rough terms we may say that a man who energizes below his normal maximum fails by just so much to profit by his chances in life; and that a nation filled with such men is inferior to a nation run at higher pressure. The problem is, then, how can men be trained up to their most useful pitch of energy? And how can nations make such training most accessible to all their sons and daughters. This, after all, is only the general problem of education, formulated in slightly different terms. (James, 1911: 8)

Note how James' skilful deployment of the energy metaphor allows him to slide smoothly between the engineering language of things being run at high pressure and the language of social policy. This facile mixture of the moral and the physical characterizes his entire presentation of the topic and sets the tone for the psychological discourse on motivation that was to follow. James (1911: 32) tells us that 'the idea of one's honor, for example, unlocks energy', and generalizes as follows: 'The physiologists call a stimulus 'dynamogenic' when it increases the muscular contractions of men to whom it is applied; but appeals can be dynamogenic morally as well as muscularly' (James, 1911: 15). This ambiguity of the 'dynamic' language of psychological energy, this sliding between the moral and the muscular, was to provide the magic formula that brought the psychology of motivation into existence.

Around the time of James' address, subjects in a psychological study were already supplying introspective reports that referred to the 'force' of a motive (Barrett, 1911), while the psychological theories of Janet and Freud operated with concepts of mental force. What the subsequent literature on 'motivation' added was the metaphorical framework that would permit the domestication of this discourse of forceful subjectivity by the imperatives of social control and social engineering. 'Energy', which could be mental, yet engineered like physical energy, was the key to that framework.

Emergence of the concept of drive

Practical interest in 'motivation' and human energetics had created an area of discourse that appeared ripe for theoretical unification. If this area was to be successfully annexed by the discipline of Psychology, the latter would have to show that it possessed concepts and practices that could provide it with a scientific foundation.

Unfortunately, the discipline was not well equipped for this task. Its experimental core, preoccupied with laboratory studies of cognitive problems, was quite remote from such concerns. More recent, biologically inspired, inquiries offered more hope, especially on the level of

practice. As we saw in the previous chapter, a sub-discipline of animal behaviour studies had grown up within American Psychology. Unlike its European counterpart, this field had adopted a distinctly interventionist stance towards its subject matter. Animals were confronted with strange environments and alien problems. The creature that American experimentalists were interested in was the animal *at work*. Now, working animals, like working people, required incentives to keep them going. These could be either positive, like food and sex, or negative, like escape from punishment through electric shock or confinement. At first, the use of such incentives was incidental to the main interest of the experimenter in the way the animal solved the tasks on which it had been put to work. But gradually, the incentives themselves became the focus of attention, so that experiments were designed so as to explore their relative effectiveness. By the early 1920s there was a considerable literature on this topic (Simmons, 1924).

This was a psychologically oriented, not a zoological, literature. It was not intended to contribute to the more efficient training of circus animals but to the development of fundamental principles that would also apply to the relative effectiveness of different incentives in humans. Potentially, such work might supply basic scientific insights that could then be applied by those concerned with the working of incentives in industry, in the classroom, in the administration of justice, and so on. But one could only have faith in that promise if one uncritically accepted the analogy between working laboratory animals and humans in institutional settings. To a large extent, this analogy depended on a highly elastic use of certain key terms. It had to be assumed that what was classified under the category of 'incentives' in factories, schools, prisons, etc., was *essentially* similar to what was called an incentive in the animal laboratory. Otherwise, there would be no foundation for the belief that investigation of the one would lead to knowledge about the other. Behind the trappings of scientific procedure there lurked a naive verbal realism: because something was *called* a reward in one situation it had to be similar, at some profound level, to something else that was called a reward in a very different setting. What propelled such vaults of reason was an ideology of biological essentialism, the belief that human conduct was *directly* governed by universal biological principles, irrespective of its context.

Nevertheless, there were obvious limits to the range of problems for which studies of incentives among laboratory animals might be considered relevant. Huge areas of human experience, hitherto accounted for by invoking such concepts as will, motive and attitude, were left untouched by such studies. If a biological psychology was to extend its sway over these content areas, something more than studies of animal incentives would be needed. It was necessary to come up with new theoretical categories that would cement the biological anchoring of these areas of human experience.

But first one had to decide which form of biology one was to espouse, for there were still two forms extant, the vitalistic and the mechanistic kind. The former was represented psychologically by William McDougall, a tireless propagandist for the idea that all human behaviour was driven by a finite number of fixed instincts. The category of instinct had enjoyed a period of great popularity among those who felt that Darwin had unlocked the door through which psychology had to pass to become a true science. William James enthused about instincts, as did many of his contemporaries. But McDougall's version was hard to swallow, at least in an American setting (Krantz and Allen, 1967). It was too closely linked to an explicit purposivism that offended the mechanistic sensibilities of its audience. Moreover, its way of making room for environmental influences, through its author's rather old-fashioned belief in the inheritance of acquired characteristics, made it unappealing to a generation that was pinning its hopes on the quick environmental fix.²

If a category of instincts grounded in purposivism was a non-starter, as far as unifying the psychology of motivation was concerned, perhaps mechanistic biology held the answer? Attempts in this direction were not lacking. Their common feature was the reduction of the category of 'motive' to that of 'reflex'. All behaviour, animal or human, simple or complex, was a matter of specific stimuli eliciting specific responses. Like all would-be scientific accounts of motivation, this one was based on the ambiguous notion of 'energy', but in this case the source of the energy that directed action was located in the environment rather than the organism. Doing one thing rather than another meant coming under the influence of one specific set of stimuli rather than another. This view, rooted in the tropistic ideas of late nineteenth-century mechanistic biology (Pauly, 1987), implied an energetic interpretation of the category of stimulation. Power to provoke movement ultimately resided in stimuli, not in organisms, and questions of motivation were therefore reducible to questions of competition among stimuli as to which of them would become prepotent at any particular time. Early behaviourists opted for such an approach, but one did not need to identify with all aspects of their programme to do so. Troland, whose early text on motivation has already been mentioned, also favoured this kind of theorizing. However, in the long run, the enormous theoretical load placed on the vague notion of stimulation proved too much even for this supremely elastic category. Something more distinctive was needed to pull together all the bits and pieces that constituted the new field of 'motivation'.

The task was accomplished by the concept of 'drive', which was invented towards the end of World War I, and achieved theoretical dominance of the field by the 1930s.³ Its inventor was Robert Sessions Woodworth, a prominent experimentalist located at Columbia University, whom we will encounter again in Chapter 9. His own account of his invention of 'drive' is not without interest:

I am sure I did not derive the word from any previous psychologist. I got it from mechanics. A machine has a mechanism, such that if it is put in motion it operates in a certain way; but it must be driven in order to move. The 'drive' of a machine is the supply of energy that puts it in motion. (Young, 1936: 71)

Woodworth introduced 'drive' to the psychological world in a 1918 monograph, entitled *Dynamic Psychology*.⁴ Likening the living organism to a loaded gun with stored energy, he noted that a stimulus acted as a 'drive' to release this energy. Recognizing that this could hardly be equated with the operation of a motive, he then posed the question of 'whether we can work our way up from the drive as external stimulus to the drive as inner motive' (Woodworth, 1918: 38).

He thought he could accomplish this transformation by drawing on ideas about nervous activity that had been developed by the neuro-physiologist, Sir Charles Sherrington, with whom he had worked (Woodworth, 1961). As we saw in Chapter 4, Sherrington stood in a line of development that had resulted in a convergence of empiricist mental philosophy and bioenergetics. Woodworth relied on the following Sherringtonian notions in his construction of the concept of 'drive': (1) the nervous system was organized into (reflex) sub-systems that stored and released energy; (2) the release of energy by a nervous segment could take place over a period of time, especially if direct release was not possible; (3) the release of energy in one nervous segment could trigger the release of energy in other segments; (4) the above mechanisms underlie two distinct classes of organismic reactions, *consummatory* and *anticipatory*. Consummatory reactions are those which constitute the natural end or final term in a sequence of movements by the organism, such as swallowing the meat of prey that has been hunted down, killed and ingested. Anticipatory actions are all those that lead up to consummatory ones (Sherrington, 1961: ch. 9).

Woodworth simply generalized these notions so as to produce a framework for the explanation of any kind of human conduct. The hypothetical action of one segment on another (no. 3 above) he called 'drive', evoking the machine analogy he had in mind. A case of drive action that had particular biological importance would occur when the nervous segments serving consummatory actions were energized but could not discharge (when there was no food to swallow), so that they would trigger the activity of other segments serving 'preparatory' actions (Sherrington's 'anticipatory' actions). That made it possible, for example, to speak of the 'hunger drive' as 'motivating' all sorts of actions leading up to the act of eating. Drive action attributable to biological consummatory activity came to be called 'primary', but Woodworth (1918: 42) was quite clear about the fact that 'any mechanism might be a drive'.

Although the Sherringtonian derivation was soon forgotten, the concept of 'drive' quickly became popular. Its equation of animal drive and

mechanical drive led to concerted attempts at measuring the strength of the former in the same way as one would measure the latter, by pitting it against an opposed force of known strength. Thus, Moss (1924) measured drive in terms of the strength of electric shock animals were prepared to undergo in order to reach a goal object. Other psychologists (Dashiehl, 1925; Warden, 1931) soon joined in this endeavour. Richter (1927), a biologist, pursued a long term programme of research into the physiological conditions of 'animal drive'. For some time, these were mainly looked for in the blood and digestive systems, rather than in the brain. That allowed recourse to physiological notions of 'homeostasis' (Cannon, 1929) in explaining the action of drives. Only in the post-Second World War period was there a return to neurophysiological speculation regarding the physical basis of motivation (Hebb, 1949).

The term soon found its way into psychology textbooks, providing the unifying concept for their treatment of motivation. Human motives were supposed to be reducible to 'primary' drives, equated with the 'animal drives' manipulated in laboratory studies. At this point, the drive concept played much the same role as the concept of instinct had done a generation earlier. It was the vehicle for a radical biological reductionism in psychology, though the biology that was now favoured was starkly mechanistic in character.

In the 1930s, the concept of 'drive' took on the form in which it was to survive for the rest of the century. It was taken up by both major versions of neo-behaviourist doctrine, that of Tolman, and that of Hull. Like much else characteristic of neo-behaviourism, the drive concept survived the demise of the more idiosyncratic features of these theoretical systems (Smith, 1984). In both systems the notion of 'drive' was a crucial component of the structure of mechanistic instrumentalism that they imposed on all activity, human as well as animal. Tolman (1932), who had made a comfortable switch from instincts to drives, took over, from the biologist Craig, a distinction between 'consummatory' reactions and a state of 'appetite' which precedes them. This was similar to the Sherringtonian distinction between consummatory and 'anticipatory' activity earlier adopted by Woodworth. In both cases, there was a strict separation of directional and energetic components. The state referred to as 'appetitive', 'anticipatory', 'preparatory', or simply as 'drive', is a 'state of agitation' (Tolman, 1932: 273) whose role is the energizing of behaviour. The directional component is supplied by a different feature, which Tolman calls 'expectancy' or 'means-end-readiness'. In Hull's (1943b) version, behaviour is also energized by 'drive', but the directional component consists of chained stimulus-response connections called 'habit'. The theoretical differences involved here should not be allowed to obscure the fundamental similarity: both systems were built on a basic distinction between energizing and directing components, universally applicable to *all* behaviour, human and animal.

Motivational psychology as normative

The energy vs. direction distinction provided the basis for interpreting all behaviour in instrumentalist terms (Koch, 1956). Only a few actions, such as eating and copulating, were classified as 'consummatory'. For the rest, 'consummation' was extrinsic to the action itself, though the 'need' for such consummation was supposed to supply the energy without which no action would take place. For the discipline of Psychology, the advantage of this model was that it made possible the integration of practical and scientific imperatives. The burgeoning practical interest in 'motivation' as a means of social control, discussed in the previous section, had presupposed instrumentalism. One could influence people's actions as producers and consumers by playing on the motives they had for working or for purchasing products. These motives were thought of as extrinsic to the actions themselves. One could induce individuals to work more intensively or more consistently by exciting personal ambitions; one could induce them to purchase one's brand of drugs or cosmetics by exciting fear and envy. Implicitly, there was a notable lack of faith in the intrinsic attractions of work, of many consumer products, and more generally, of socially valuable activity. What a science of 'motivation' might supply were principles to guide attempts at influencing people's actions by controlling the extrinsic motives that governed those actions.

Such hopes jibed comfortably with the prevailing engineering model of science. The principles to be looked for took the form of linear sequences of efficient causality. In the paradigmatic experimental situation, starving the rat was conceived as being analogous to pulling a control lever on a piece of machinery that would set in motion a chain of causes and effects. Conceptually, this was represented, both by Tolman and by Hull, in terms of a series of links between antecedent, intervening and consequent variables.⁵

An important feature of the neo-behaviourist use of the drive concept was its *stipulative* nature. The basic separation of energizing and directing components, the ubiquity of extrinsic motivation, the notion that motives must act like the efficient causes of mechanics, these were all non-empirical principles built into a conceptual framework for interpreting the behaviour of both laboratory rats and humans. There was no way in which any of these principles could be refuted without abandoning this framework. Adhering to the framework meant stipulating the universal validity of these principles. That could easily have normative implications. The deeply buried, culturally rooted, taken for granted quality of the principles meant that, for many, alternative interpretations became literally unthinkable.

Perhaps this accounts for the continued popularity of the drive concept and its analogues during the post-Second World War period, in spite of the fact that by 1950 their inadequacy was apparent, even in

the closed world of animal experimentation (Koch, 1951). During the decades that followed, 'drive' continued to function as 'the main motivational construct all across the wide spectrum of psychological studies', though admittedly, its use had 'become increasingly vague' (Bindra, 1985: 347). In part, that vagueness was due to a practice which had led to the worst excesses of instinct theory and was increasingly affecting the drive concept: a collection of particular goal-directed activities was given a general name which was then used as the name of some hypothetical internal force, variously called instinct, drive, need or motive, that was supposed to be the cause of all the particular activities. In this way, psychologists like William James (1890) had posited instincts of rivalry, acquisitiveness, secretiveness and cleanliness. More than half a century later, we encounter talk about innate drives responsible for general cognitive processes, like knowing, learning and comprehending (Nissen, 1954). The circularity of such 'explanations' is obvious, for the facts which these drives or instincts are supposed to explain are identical with the facts adduced to establish their existence.

But if the logical deficiencies of such 'explanations' are so glaring, what accounts for their apparently inextinguishable popularity? To answer that question we have to look at some further developments of the drive concept that are even closer to the Jamesian listing of instincts than Nissen's cognitive drives. Shortly before World War II, H.A. Murray, the head of the Harvard Psychological Clinic, had compiled a list of human 'needs', like those for acquisition, for superiority, for autonomy, and for achievement (Murray, 1938). The difference between this concept of 'need' and the prevailing drive concept was that the foundation in mechanistic biology was dropped. The psychology of human motivation had become autonomous, and animal experimentation had lost its privileged status as a source of basic knowledge about motivation in general. In the post-war period, this approach was popularized by psychologists like McClelland (McClelland et al., 1953), who established a minor industry devoted to 'achievement motivation', and Maslow (1954), for whom the concept of human needs provided a crucial component in an approach that came to be known as 'humanistic' psychology.

Hypothetical biological mechanisms no longer played any significant role in the construction of any of these motivational concepts. Their place was taken by cultural conventions employed in the everyday justification of actions. Such everyday accounts of the reasons for a person's actions may simply refer to a specific goal pursued by the person, but sometimes the explanation is in terms of a general personal quality, such as the individual's ambition or greed. In that case, a certain class of actions is distinguished from others on the basis of certain features that all members of the class are perceived to share. These features are then attributed to the person carrying out the actions. But in

the making of such distinctions cultural-linguistic conventions play a crucial role. In picking out common features among different actions performed in different contexts one makes use of named categories that are current in one's culture and that provide an acceptable account of individuals' actions. Societies differ greatly in the categories that are available and recognized for this purpose. They also differ historically in the categories that are available and recognized at any particular time. What the psychology of so-called human needs did was to take categories that were in vogue in a particular society at a particular period and to reify them by using them as names for hypothetical forces within the person that were supposedly responsible for producing all the actions that could be given the corresponding label.

The role of this form of the psychology of motivation as a kind of *cultural apologetics* is unmistakable. Elevating one set of historically contingent conventions to the status of universal human needs not only emphasized their importance for the society in which they originated but provided a rationale for proselytizing efforts elsewhere. This was especially evident in the case of the most popular of these supposed needs, those for 'achievement' and for 'self-realization'. Being so closely tied to culturally sanctified values and to unexamined conventions, this version of the psychology of motivation was reassuring and lacked the potentially subversive implications that the Freudian alternative had once harboured (Marcuse, 1956). Moreover, the psychology of human needs perpetuated the more general, and historically more deeply rooted, belief that the reasons for human conduct were to be looked for, not in particular social situations, but in hypothetical forces that inhabited individuals, 'springs of action', as they had been so vividly called in an earlier age (Bentham, 1969).

That kind of appeal was undoubtedly of benefit to the science of psychology. But more specifically, it allowed 'motivation' to continue in being as a recognized sub-field of that science. Although the field took on the appearance of a hotchpotch of topics without a common structure (see for example Weiner, 1992), the belief that 'motivation' constituted a psychological 'natural kind', potentially unified by one set of principles, continued unshaken. From the beginning, psychological writers on motivation claimed that their topic was meant to provide answers to the question of the 'why' of human behaviour. In fact, they were interested in only one kind of answer, the kind that posited intra-individual impulsions. It was this foundational commitment that created the field. Yet, even in the heyday of motivational psychology, there were those who pointed out that answers to the 'why' question could be of many kinds (Peters, 1958), and that the great defect of prevalent psychological accounts was that they universalized one kind of answer as the only acceptable kind. Had the implications of this critique not been ignored, there would have been nothing to hold the field together, even in its later highly tenuous form.

The category of personality: historical

Historically, the big question about the category of 'personality' is how it ended up as a *psychological* category. It certainly did not start out that way. Prior to the nineteenth century it had been used primarily in theological, legal and ethical contexts. The theological context is the oldest, going back to mediaeval debates about the attributes of God and other spiritual beings.⁶ Here, 'personality' tends to be used mostly in the sense of a quality of personhood. Transfer to a legal context followed during the Renaissance. This was important for subsequent developments in that the category was now definitely humanized. In due course, natural right theorists were able to speak of a 'right to personality', and by the late eighteenth century the category had become established in the discourse of Continental European moral philosophy. Kant introduced a clear distinction between 'person' and 'personality', reserving the latter for the autonomous ethical subject. In the course of the nineteenth century, however, the tendency was to apply the term to the concrete individual, though often still in an ethical, not a psychological, context. 'Personality' was beginning to come down to earth.⁷ For example, the French philosopher, Renouvier, for whom William James had a high regard, used the category to refer to the embodied, empirically knowable individual (Collins, 1985). By 1895 James (1983) had imported that usage into America.⁸

It is unlikely that this would have been a matter of great consequence had it not been for another development that had occurred in France in the late nineteenth century. This was the *medicalization* of the category of 'personality'. The philosophical doctrines with which the term had become enmeshed were much despised by certain French doctors strongly committed to a naturalistic approach to human problems. For them, an individual's personality was no spiritual principle but a natural, embodied entity as much prone to disease as other such entities. Of course, insofar as it was subject to disease personality became an appropriate object for medical, rather than philosophical, attention. By 1885 Ribot had published the first authoritative text on 'The Diseases of the Personality'.⁹ Cases of what had previously been known as 'alternating consciousness' played a key role in these developments. They now became cases of 'alternating personality', a reformulation adopted by William James in his widely read *Principles of Psychology* of 1890. A warrant for this transformation could be obtained from the Lockean tradition of equating the individual self with consciousness of self (see Chapter 3). Another prominent figure who played a role in bringing the French medical usage of 'personality' to America was Morton Prince (1905) whose early studies of multiple personality were disseminated very widely.¹⁰

By the early years of the twentieth century public fascination with the medical features, the abnormalities, of personality had become quite

unmistakable. The category, which had not been widely used in the nineteenth century, was beginning to appear with increasing frequency in popular literature. In America this was particularly evident in self-improvement literature. For the older examples of this genre the category of 'character', with its moral overtones, had usually been central, but now a series of books and articles addressed to the development of 'personality' began to appear. Whereas guides to character improvement had primarily traded in such concepts as 'duty', 'citizenship', 'integrity' and 'manhood', the newer personality development guides emphasized adjectives like 'attractive', 'creative' and 'dominant' (Susman, 1979). Not only had 'personality' become a part of the individual that had to be watched anxiously for signs of disease, it had also become a universal possession capable of degrees of perfection defined in terms of a vocabulary of social effectiveness.

It took some time for these developments to be assimilated by the new discipline of Psychology. In Continental Europe there were some, ultimately abortive, attempts to extend the objective study of individuals from the abnormal to the normal. The prominent German psychiatrist, Kraepelin, who had studied with Wundt, launched a programme of investigating differences in individual functioning experimentally, but even Kraepelin's considerable prestige could not generate any general interest in its results.¹¹ In France Alfred Binet, who had been directly involved with some of the work on abnormal personality, collaborated with Victor Henri in launching a programme of studies in what they called 'Individual Psychology' (Binet and Henri, 1895). This involved an intensive investigation and comparison of individuals to discover characteristic relationships among psychological processes in particular persons. Binet's study of his own daughters, Alice and Madeleine, is probably the best-known example of this approach.¹² But, apart from the important suggestion that normal individuals *as individuals* were to form appropriate objects for psychological investigation, this work also remained without consequence.

In America the intensive psychological study of individuals remained very largely a psychiatric preserve founded on the clinical methodology of the case history. The object of study was therefore defined as the 'case', rather than as 'personality'. American psychologists had shown little interest in the study of individuals but had manifested an early fascination with the collection of masses of information on large numbers of individuals, a kind of psychological census taking.¹³ Galton's 'anthropometry' had been adapted to the study of what came to be called 'individual differences' in the form of so-called 'mental tests'. Eventually, this led to the institutionalized practice of mass intelligence testing, as discussed in Chapter 5. But there was no claim that this amounted to a study of 'personality'. Until the 1920s such an object of investigation lay quite beyond the horizon of American psychology.

What seem to have provided the major impetus for change were the practical shortcomings of intelligence testing. The historical tie of test content and form to educational settings had produced an instrument that correlated with academic success but was of very limited usefulness in non-academic settings where it would do little more than eliminate some obviously unsuitable candidates. Therefore, from the earliest days of the application of mental testing in non-academic settings, there had been attempts to supplement intelligence testing with a rough assessment of non-intellectual qualities.¹⁴ The problem surfaced again during World War I, when such assessments appear to have been more useful to the US Army than its vast programme of intelligence testing (Mayrhauser, 1987; Samelson, 1979).

With the huge expansion of intelligence testing in American schools after the war it became apparent that the excessive hopes which had been pinned on this technology were not to be fulfilled even on its home ground. There was a growing feeling that the value of these tests for predicting school success had been overrated and that they needed to be supplemented by an assessment of 'non-intellectual traits'. A similar recognition of the limitations of intelligence testing gained ground in connection with vocational selection, the prediction of criminal and delinquent behaviour, and the prognostic testing of psychiatric patients.¹⁵ But the institutional demand for rationalized, impersonal methods of social selection on a mass scale continued undiminished. The result was a scramble to invent and apply techniques for the assessment of 'non-intellectual traits'. Many of the new instruments did not survive for long, but gradually a few came to dominate the field. In any case, a mass of data accumulated that could not easily be accommodated within any of the existing subdivisions of the discipline. The need for a label that would be less cumbersome than 'non-intellectual trait testing' became obvious.

Three candidates immediately presented themselves and were all used more or less interchangeably for a time. The first, 'temperament', had a long history in a medical context but was not in current use in scientific medicine. It originated long before the rigid mind-body distinction of the modern period had come into vogue, and, once that distinction had been imposed on it, it was too easily identified with some sort of physiological reductionism. That was not what most psychologists wanted. The second candidate, 'character', certainly enjoyed widespread lay use, not least in business and industry, but had certain moralistic connotations that seemed to be incompatible with its employment as a supposedly scientific category. In particular, character was tainted by its historical association with the concept of will, a concept that had become anathema to scientifically minded American psychologists.¹⁶

The third candidate, 'personality', had several things in its favour which have already been mentioned. It had recently become a popular category of folk psychology that professional psychologists were

expected to know something about. In its new popular meaning 'personality' was no longer the property of the few, but referred to everybody's capacity for being different from others (Susman, 1979). This change in the semantics of 'personality', together with its lack of moralistic connotations, certainly provided a better fit with the aspirations of many American psychologists than its potential competitors, character and temperament.

But the decisive factor favouring the emergence of 'personality' as the description of a twentieth-century psychological object was probably its preceding medicalization. That meant that it had already been constituted as a potential object of scientific investigation, not only in the basic sense of being a natural object subject to disease, but also in the more special sense of being what Ribot (1885: 3) called *un tout de coalition*, 'an associated whole'. Unlike 'character', whose reference was to something considered essentially unitary, 'personality' was essentially diverse, an assembly of various tendencies. Its health depended on the relationship among its components. This componential model provided a far more promising starting point for quantitative empirical research than the unitary model implied by current usage of the term 'character'.¹⁷

It is true that the earlier medical interest was limited to the aberrations of personality, but the step from that to the inclusion of all individual proclivities in the medical gaze was soon taken. In North America a major location for this process was the mental hygiene movement. At the height of its influence during the period of the emergence of 'personality' as a distinct object of psychological investigation, it was dedicated to the identification of *potential* cases of individual maladjustment and their timely treatment. That meant that everyone's personality, not just that of people already classified as disturbed, was now an object of medical interest because it might carry the seeds of future disturbance.¹⁸ Had mental hygiene limited itself to a concern with the major psychiatric disorders its influence might have been relatively restricted. However, it became a powerful expositor of a pervasive social philosophy that attributed the causes of virtually all social problems to the personal 'maladjustment' of individuals.¹⁹ The 'personality' which everyone possessed was now seen as the site where the seeds of future individual and social problems were sown and germinated.

That not only demanded energetic programmes of shaping and intervention for which teachers, social workers and others were recruited, it also provided a niche that could best be filled by the up and coming discipline of Psychology. The specific features of this 'personality', now seen as the fountainhead, not only of human achievements, but of so many human problems, had to be identified, classified and measured, if the practical measures inspired by the hopes of mental hygiene were to be placed on a scientific footing. No one was in a better position than psychologists to perform this task. Had they not already accomplished

something similar with regard to the most important of all individual attributes, namely, intelligence? Why should the methods which had proved so effective in making intelligence an object of scientific social selection not provide the model for how other personal attributes might be subjected to the same process?

Indeed, psychologists proceeded to make their contribution by using the experience gained in intelligence testing to construct techniques of what was called 'personality measurement'. These techniques were based on standard sets of questions about personal attributes to be answered by the person herself or by some other individual who had some acquaintance with the person. Various other personality tests went into and out of fashion from time to time, but rating the attributes of others or of oneself formed the bedrock of personality measurement from the beginning and remained so. The appeal of this technique depended not on the flimsy instruments that formed its basis but on the interpretation that was placed on its results.

The instruments deployed by psychologists were of two kinds, verbal and statistical. The former employed labels that might be applied to individuals in ordinary language, such as sociable, submissive, emotional, and so on. The latter employed statistical correlations, almost always performed on data collected from large numbers of individuals, and in due course, the mathematical description of matrices of such correlations. This resulted in the production of 'scales' for the 'measurement' of various features of 'personality' that were of potential interest to clinicians, personnel managers, school principals and anyone else who had to make decisions about the fate of individuals on the basis of their supposed ability to perform effectively in various social settings. Later on, as personality measurement became a flourishing enterprise within academic psychology, it lost its earlier link to social practice and developed loftier ambitions.²⁰ The goal was now the development of a short list of basic and universal attributes that would account for the maximum amount of individual variation on the entire universe of traits constituting human personality.

Personality psychology and cultural conservatism

In their pursuit of the project of personality measurement psychologists worked within a framework of assumptions that never had to be questioned because they were so widely held in the societies in which they operated. Among these assumptions two deserve at least a passing mention here. One concerns the belief that human conduct is the expression of some essence within the individual, an essence that remains the same irrespective of the conditions under which the conduct occurs and is observed (Kagan, 1988). The psychology of personality measurement added the refinement that variations in intra-individual

essence between individuals were purely quantitative, so that all individuals could be assigned a position on the same universal set of attributes.²¹ This refinement had played a crucial role in the first constitution of a human quality as a measurable, universal attribute, namely, intelligence. It was now extended to all individual attributes in principle. 'Personality' was now constituted as the sum of these universally present, measurable intra-individual essences.

The second major assumption that was indispensable for the constitution of personality as the object for a certain kind of measurement concerned the role of language. 'Personality' was posited as a real natural entity existing quite independently of anyone's description of it. Yet the favoured method for the investigation of this entity depended entirely on verbal description! On the one hand, 'personality' was to be treated as an object not fundamentally different from any other object of natural science, but on the other hand, scientific access to this object was to be gained primarily through its description in everyday language. One has to wonder how the older natural sciences would have fared, had they adopted this approach to knowledge. So personality research based on questionnaires, rating scales, adjectival checklists and so on would seem to have faced a fundamental problem. How could it be claimed that it provided knowledge of anything beyond the semantic space of personality description?²²

Yet this problem hardly seems to have disturbed the busy work of personality research. One probable reason for that was the predominance of purely practical goals in the early days of this research. But as the scientific pretensions of the domain grew, it became clear that they depended on certain articles of faith pertaining to the role of language. In the first place, it was never questioned that language *represented* reality, and more specifically, that it *reflected* the natural contours of an objective world existing outside and independently of it. So there was no problem about investigating personality via its verbal description – it was like observing something in a mirror. Such ideas about the role of language had a long tradition behind them and were deeply ingrained in the culture that nurtured personality psychology (Crapanzano, 1990).

Almost equally ingrained was the belief in a timeless 'human nature', independent of culture and history. That made it possible to turn undeniable historical variations in language into an advantage. If 'personality' (i.e. 'human nature') never changes, and if the verbal descriptions that are its reflection change over time, then it is easy to conclude that these changes represent an ever better reflection of what was really there all the time. But then, why not go all the way and say that this process is already complete, that the words in the language already provide, not just a reflection, but a *perfect* reflection of 'personality'? Some of the most influential personality researchers did in fact mount such an argument. R.B. Cattell, to cite only one prominent example, said that he was 'making only the one assumption that all

aspects of human personality which are or have been of importance, interest, or utility have already been recorded in the substance of language' (Cattell, 1943: 483). Such a statement would not have been remarkable had it been made a century earlier. What makes it remarkable is its historical location. It epitomizes a striking feature of the construction of 'personality' as an object of psychological research in the twentieth century, namely its cultural conservatism. This enterprise could only flourish by appealing to rather venerable folk beliefs about human nature and language and steadfastly ignoring relevant contemporary developments in philosophy and social science.

That cultural conservatism is also in evidence when one considers a further aspect of the historical construction of 'personality' within the discipline of Psychology – its role in warding off the radical threat of so-called 'depth psychology'. The period during which 'personality' took its place as a recognized academic domain within Psychology was also the period during which that discipline faced a serious threat to its continued popular success from a competitor that could not simply be ignored. That competitor was psychoanalysis, or more accurately, depth psychology. The latter term is to be preferred because Freudian psychoanalysis was only the most visible, the most successful, representative of a set of approaches which included that of Jung and some of the neo-Freudians, all of which had a family resemblance to each other. The basis of this resemblance constituted an indirect threat to much of academic psychology and a direct threat to the foundations of American personality psychology.

All versions of depth psychology were founded on a basic disjunction between appearance and reality in matters psychological. Whatever seemed to be unproblematically observable and reportable was suspect. It was likely to be but a screen, a camouflage whose function was to mislead. Behind this screen there existed the real psychological world, very different from what was displayed for all to see. That disjunction extended to everyday language. So far from being a reflection of reality it was more likely to be an instrument for its disguise. All this was expressed in the central metaphor of this psychology, the metaphor of surface and depth.

That represented a radical challenge to the naive empiricism of much academic psychology, particularly the emerging psychology of motivation and personality. The methods of the latter, especially, depended on taking verbal description at face value, treating it as a trustworthy reflection of what was actually there to be known. From the point of view of depth psychology, however, the investigations of empiricist personality psychology were about as likely to lead to scientific insights into the functioning of human individuals as the printing of pretty flower postcards was to lead to breakthroughs in scientific biology. Yet depth psychology in its Freudian version was experiencing an astounding wave of popularity, particularly in the United States. This

popularity affected many of those whose opinion mattered to American psychologists – psychiatrists, advertising executives and educationists among others. It even led to stirrings of self-doubt in the ranks of the psychologists. It could not be ignored.

Some psychologists continued to dismiss psychoanalysis and the rest as unscientific. There was a certain honesty about this, for the notions of science of most academic psychologists and most depth psychologists were indeed incompatible. But in the long run another solution to the problem proved more viable. Depth psychology was domesticated, a process in which the category of 'personality' played a key role. What happened was that some of the doctrines of depth psychology, in suitably watered-down form, were presented as 'theories of personality'. Courses began to be taught on this topic and textbooks written. 'Personality' became an umbrella term to cover both what depth psychology was after and what those who relied on questionnaires and rating scales were after. The insinuation that this was ultimately the same thing was however false and misleading. Freud was not a 'personality theorist'. Whatever the objects he was theorizing about, they were not 'personality' as it had been constructed within American psychology. Indeed, there developed the extraordinary situation where the teaching of 'personality theory' and research on 'personality' went their separate ways. The exception was formed by sporadic attempts to test psychoanalytic theories by means of the standard methods of academic psychology. These signalled that 'personality' hardly functioned as a neutral term accommodating all constructions of the psychological object without bias. There was always a strong tendency to treat the empiricist construction as the metaphysically real one. Attempts to 'test' psychoanalytic theories by methods based on the assumptions of naive empiricism were never matched by attempts to test these assumptions by methods that assumed the truth of psychoanalytic theory.

All the psychological categories discussed in this book present a Janus face. In intra-disciplinary discourse they acquired a rather specific meaning based on shared methodological commitments, but in psychologists' contacts with extra-disciplinary institutions they retained a much broader and varied meaning. The category of 'personality', however, acquired, not just these two faces, but a plethora of meanings that had only the most tenuous connection with each other. Among these meanings the following are particularly worthy of note: (1) personality as the object posited by the project of building a body of universally valid knowledge about socially decontextualized human individuals; (2) personality as a quasi-medical entity subject to disease, disorder and symptomatology and therefore the target of measures to ensure 'normality' or 'health'; (3) personality as an aggregate of traits reflected in verbal descriptions; (4) personality as the supposedly common object of interest among incommensurable approaches to human psychology; (5) personality as a container for a variety of psychological investigations

and questions that did not fit into the other recognized subdivisions of the discipline.

Historically, the use of the same term to denote all these things removed the need of proving that they were ultimately all one thing. This process of 'unification by naming' certainly helped to keep the work of the discipline going without being slowed down or interrupted by awkward questions. The significance of this work was another issue entirely.

Notes

1. The inverted commas around 'applied psychology' are intended to indicate that the term was misleading. At that time, there was very little 'pure' psychology to apply to anything, and for the most part, applied psychologists made up their psychology as they grappled with specific problems. Often, their innovations would then lead to new questions and procedures in 'basic' psychology. This tail was capable of wagging the dog.

2. The contrast between the poor reception McDougall's ideas received in America and their much greater success in Britain (the first edition of his *Introduction to Social Psychology* was published there in 1908 – the 33rd edition in 1950) provides a rather vivid little example of the cultural embeddedness of psychological theory.

3. One occasionally meets the grotesque suggestion that 'drive' might have been derived from the German *Trieb*, which Anglo-Saxon psychologists had come across in the writings of Freud. Apart from the fact that the German equivalent of 'drive', as used in *American Psychology*, is not *Trieb* but *Antrieb*, the meaning and antecedents of 'drive' and *Trieb* are utterly different. The modern derivation of 'drive' from the world of machinery is well documented. *Trieb*, however, has a long pedigree in German philosophy and philosophical psychology. It played a role in Kant's version of faculty psychology, represented the pure activity of the ego in the philosophy of Fichte, and became the basis for the self-realization of living subjects in Hegelian psychology. It was a basic concept in most versions of German nineteenth-century philosophical psychology and was taken up by Wilhelm Wundt, who regarded it as providing the basis of mental activity. In the late nineteenth century *Trieb* began to acquire a more biological hue, but its connotations continued to be very different from the English *instinct*. The task of Freud's translators was an impossible one, because there simply is no English equivalent for *Trieb*. The term epitomizes the very different paths taken by Anglo-Saxon and by German psychology during the nineteenth century.

4. 'Dynamic' became a psychological catchword that usually indicated employment of some variant of the energy metaphor, but eventually became almost meaningless from overuse.

5. This scheme was not limited to the explanation of motivation. Its more general significance is discussed in Chapter 9.

6. The best overview of the historical vicissitudes of the categories 'person' and 'personality' (not always clearly distinguished in the past) is to be found in Ritter and Gründer 1989: 270–338, 346–354).

7. Romanticism, with its admiration for the singular, the outstanding, individual was part of this process. As a result, it now became possible to ascribe an 'overpowering personality' to an individual like Napoleon, or to associate an attribute like 'charm' with an individual's personality (see *Oxford English Dictionary*, 1989, XI: 602).

8. See also Leary (1990).

9. Two features of Ribot's *personalité* are particularly worthy of note: it is not regarded as a unity but as 'an associated whole' (p. 3), and it has a biological basis – even animals are considered to have a form of it.

10. These developments, all too briefly summarized here, are discussed at much greater length in Hacking (1995).

11. Kraepelin even launched a journal, *Psychologische Arbeiten*, that would publish work conducted under this programme. Only nine volumes ever appeared, and it ceased publication upon Kraepelin's death. This work remained largely unknown to American psychologists.

12. See Binet (1903). Good secondary accounts are to be found in Wolf (1973) and Fancher (1990). Sharp (1899) provides an interesting review during the heyday of Individual Psychology.

13. For further details, see Danziger (1990a), Chapter 5.

14. Historically, the most important of these attempts was made by Walter Dill Scott, appointed professor of advertising in 1909 and of applied psychology in 1916 (Mayrhauser, 1987), who developed a system for the selection of salesmen.

15. The list of relevant publications is too long to be reproduced here. Some examples are given in Danziger (1990a); for further details, see Parker (1991).

16. For an extensive discussion of the history of temperament and character, see Roback (1927). On the international ramifications of 'character' vs. 'personality', see McDougall (1932). Both of these authors were outside the mainstream of American psychology. The insider who helped most to establish 'personality' rather than 'character' as the 'scientific' term of choice was G.W. Allport (1927). He did this by adopting J.B. Watson's (1919) distinction between 'personality evaluated', which was 'character', and 'personality' taken as a morally neutral scientific object. For these psychologists the avoidance of moral connotations always went hand in hand with the denial of the essentially social nature of personality. Social factors could 'influence' personality from the outside, but were not part of its 'actual nature', its psychological essence. On Allport's historical role and psychological essentialism, see Nicholson (1996).

17. In Germany there was a concerted attempt to subject 'character' to empirical investigation (Geuter, 1992). This failed for a number of reasons, one of which was the inapplicability of quantitative models. See Vernon (1933) for an early description of the contrast between the German and the American approach, and Danziger (1990a) for further analysis.

18. The psychiatrist Adolf Meyer played a key role here. See Leys (1990b).

19. See Shea (1980); Cohen (1983).

20. The codification of 'personality' as a recognized domain within academic psychology was marked by the almost simultaneous appearance of three texts defining the field for many years to come: Allport (1937); Murray (1938); and, much less influential, Stagner (1937). On Allport's trajectory from early behaviouristically inspired and practically oriented research to personalistic essentialism, see Nicholson (1996).

21. See Danziger (1990a) and Rose (1988) for more extended discussions.

22. For a review of this problem, see Semin (1990).

ATTITUDES

Social Psychology has been more affected by passing fads and fashions than almost any other major branch of the discipline. Yet, through all the changes in briefly 'hot' research topics, one concept has maintained its commanding position at the core of this sub-discipline. It is the concept of 'social attitudes', more often simply referred to as 'attitudes'. Psychological social psychology's first modern textbook¹ already devotes a section to this topic (F.H. Allport, 1924), and seventy years later, it is reported that during the most recent twenty-year period over 34,000 published studies addressed attitudes in some way (Kraus, 1995).

Popular and convenient as the notion of 'attitudes' may have turned out to be, it is nevertheless a rather recent addition to the conceptual inventory of psychology. Although the word 'attitude' occurs in some psychological literature dating back to the first two decades of the twentieth century, the *category* of 'social attitudes' (note the plural) only makes its decisive entry into social psychological discourse in the period beginning at the end of World War I. The history of modern usage might well be regarded as beginning at this point. However, because earlier technical uses of 'attitude' throw an interesting light on more recent usage, it is worth taking a brief look at this bit of 'pre-history'.

An unpromising beginning

Technical, as distinct from everyday, uses of 'attitude' first occur in discourse about art, especially visual art and the theatre. Both of these art forms were very much concerned with making inner states visible, presenting outwardly visible forms as the *expression* of an inner reality. The *posture* of a figure depicted by an actor, a painter or a sculptor was never understood merely as a physical disposition of bodily parts in space but always carried a meaning due to its expressive function. The 'attitude' of the figure was the visible arrangement of its parts into a meaningful pattern, as in 'an attitude of waiting', or of devotion, or of nonchalance, for example. It should be noted that here there is no question of a causal link between an inner and an outer aspect. Rather, the 'attitude' of the figure refers to an inherent unity of inner and outer